

possible, but once the NPS acquired the Apostles, the dream of recovering those islands ended.

Nevertheless, the Chippewa did successfully protect their reservations against park expansion. That victory of 1970 marked a watershed in relations between American Indians and national parks. For a century the government had pursued reservation lands needed for parks, and in doing so it had treated living Indians as a passive if not invisible presence—at Mesa Verde, Olympic, and Canyon de Chelly, at Glacier, Grand Canyon, and Mt. Rainier. After 1970, the NPS could no longer ignore resident Indians. The Park Service and environmentalists learned a lesson on Lake Superior, and they were soon to learn it again in the Grand Canyon. In the larger context of national park history, the magnitude of a Chippewa victory at Apostle Islands will become apparent.

2

FROM YOSEMITE TO ZUNI

Parks and Native People, 1864–1994

The fundamental purpose [of national parks] is to conserve the scenery and the natural and historic objects and the wildlife therein and to provide for the enjoyment of same in such manner . . . as will leave them unimpaired for the enjoyment of future generations.

—U.S. Congress, August 25, 1916

One hundred years from now, as people look back on our use of this continent, we shall not be praised for our reckless use of its oil, nor the weakening of our watershed values through overgrazing, nor the loss of our forests; we shall be heartily damned for all these things. But we may take comfort in the knowledge that we shall certainly be thanked for the national parks.

—Ray Lyman Wilbur, Secretary of the Interior, 1931

In 1832, when the artist George Catlin proposed “some great protecting policy of government” to be called a national park, he imagined a sanctuary for Plains Indian culture as well as wildlife. A century and a half later, after America had created hundreds of park units on eighty million acres of land, the government would finally adopt an official park policy toward native people. As a special statement about a specific topic, that 1987 document survived just one year before being disassembled and scattered by seemingly endless NPS management

directives. Thus, even after the Wisconsin Chippewa and a few other tribes had successfully resisted park initiatives, inbred habits of thought continued on.

The oldest habit of conservationist and Park Service thinking had been to overlook tribal welfare, yet despite repeated if unintentional oversights, Indian relations with national parks have been intimate, just as Catlin had anticipated. National parks had already existed for fifty-two years when Congress created the NPS in 1916 and placed it within the Department of the Interior. With the BIA next door, by then lodged in Interior for sixty-seven years, the Park Service and Indians could not avoid each other. That was nothing new. For context, it is helpful to review federal Indian policy and then outline the early growth of America's park system before examining specific stories at Mesa Verde, Glacier, Olympic, Grand Canyon, and elsewhere.

The Evolution of U.S. Indian Policy

When Congress transferred the Indian Office from the War Department to Interior in 1849, the government's approach to native people had shifted from an emphasis on promoting domestic trade and preventing foreign alliances to seeking complete removal of Indians from the path of national expansion. This led to the creation of reservations, a policy begun shortly before 1849. While the language of some Americans, including a few in the Office of Indian Affairs, could be racist and genocidal, the official policy of Congress and the U.S. Supreme Court endeavored to protect Indians and promote their welfare. With John Marshall's landmark Cherokee decisions of the 1830s, the Court assumed its role as defender of Indian rights. Congress in turn promised to provide protection, schools, religion, and material aid. Most important, Congress had decreed that all negotiation with tribes be a federal monopoly; by using treaties to achieve its ends, the federal government conferred a legal status on Indians enjoyed by no other group in America.

A flurry of treaties in the 1850s acquired vast tracts of Indian land on the plains and in the Pacific Northwest. Because of geography, the Civil War, and determined native resistance, matters did not proceed smoothly over the next decades as railroads, cattlemen, loggers, and miners occupied the Great Plains, the Rocky Mountains, the deserts of the Southwest, and the Pacific Coast. The names Little Crow, Sitting Bull, Crazy Horse, Sand Creek, Bozeman Trail, Beecher Island, Adobe Wells, Cochise, Geronimo, Little Big Horn, Kit Carson, Custer, Canyon de Chelly, Bear Paw, and Chief Joseph reflect the bloodshed

and military conquest of the 1860s and 1870s. That violent era brought about the end of treaty-making, although "agreements" continued to be made for another three decades. The 1880s and 1890s saw determined governmental and humanitarian efforts to assimilate Indians into Euro-American society through schools, Christian missions, and industrial training. The General Allotment Act of 1887 imposed individual land title in lieu of communal tribal lands. Over the next forty years land allotment in private tracts would reduce tribal territory from 138 million acres to under 47 million; some tribes lost over 90 percent of their reserves.

Their cultures scorned, ridiculed, or romanticized, their treaty rights often ignored, bewildered by defeat and dispossession, suffering from epidemic diseases, American Indians watched their population decline toward extinction. In the era in which the nation laid the foundation for its national park system, native people suffered immensely. The "crown jewels" of Yosemite, Yellowstone, Mt. Rainier, Crater Lake, Mesa Verde, Olympic, Grand Canyon, Glacier, and Rocky Mountain had been "Indian country" in 1850.

In 1934 Franklin Roosevelt's Indian New Deal abolished the allotment policy, reversed tribal land loss, and, however imperfectly, sought to restore native self-government and self-esteem. After a setback during the Truman-Eisenhower years, the 1960s policy of tribal self-determination, supported by favorable federal court decisions that guaranteed legal rights, began to show results such as those seen in the Apostle Islands story. By 1990 the BIA had lost its liaison position between tribes and Congress. Indians now spoke openly about "nationhood" and "sovereignty," and the Park Service approached tribal government with a deference formerly reserved for state agencies.¹

The Birth of the National Parks

National parks inherited a small yet significant fraction of Indian land surrendered between 1850 and 1920. The first acquisitions came at Yosemite in California and Yellowstone in Montana, official birthplaces of the world's park system. What had inspired this American idea? As usual with innovations, different factors coincided: nostalgia for the wild, as experienced by George Catlin; a sense of loss created by settlement; commercial tourism promoted by railroad companies; a patriotic need to display canyons and mountains as monuments superior to Europe's cathedrals and museums; a growing realization that industrial-urban civilization had the potential to subdue, diminish, and even

destroy such spectacular natural features as Niagara Falls; and a dawning awareness that the resource cornucopia called North America had limits and that "moving west" could no longer expand those limits. In addition, in the minds of a small but increasing number of people, especially scientists, a respect for nature itself began to emerge.

Whatever their reasons, Americans decided to set aside and protect large natural areas called "parks." Historian Simon Schama has observed that wilderness "does not locate itself, does not name itself. . . . Nor could the wilderness venerate itself." The creation of national parks first of all required a dramatic shift in human consciousness.²

Except for Catlin's nostalgia, the reasons for creating parks did not take Indians into account. With newcomers believing that the land was virgin or that native populations would soon disappear, early park experience seemed to confirm this bias. Yosemite Valley had a long indigenous history and probably owed much of its pastoral beauty to Indian land use, while Yellowstone had an even more complex human history. Yet to John Muir and others the land seemed vacant, gardenlike, unspoiled, ripe for the taking—or saving.

At Yosemite, created by Abraham Lincoln in 1864 and assigned to California for management, a virgin land illusion seemed true because twelve years earlier miners had driven out or killed the original Miwok/Ahwahneechee inhabitants. Indeed, this first national park provided the worst possible scenario for Indian/white relations: prior occupation with extensive horticulture by Indians; brutal military conquest of the land; a park created with no regard for past or present native claims; an Indian petition for redress of grievances; the ignoring of the petition by Congress; repeated efforts by park rangers to evict remnant villages; Park Service neglect of ethnographic interpretation; and belated NPS recognition that Yosemite was, and is, important to aboriginal people. It would be difficult for any park to build a worse record.³

During the century preceding creation of Yosemite, California's native population had declined over 80 percent after contact with Spanish, Mexican, and American settlers. The 1849 gold rush accelerated a fatal process previously driven by disease and Hispanic slavery. In the 1850s the native population dropped by another 100,000. In Yosemite Valley, settlers called this onslaught the Mariposa Indian War. Grim details of invasion, trumped-up charges, lynching, the slaughter of the Ahwahneechee, and their forced expulsion are recorded by participant LaFayette Bunnell in his *Discovery of the Yosemite and the Indian War of 1851*. Writing thirty years afterward, Bunnell was unreliable on

facts and causes, but his candid attitudes reveal a nineteenth-century mentality that supported the creation of parks in the West.

LaFayette Bunnell, a physician, marched into Yosemite Valley with the Mariposa Battalion, the first Americans to enter the homeland of a Miwok group called the Ahwahneechee, who had intermarried with Paiutes from east of the Sierra. The beauty of Yosemite ignited Bunnell into a frenzy of clichés: The land was "awe-inspiring," "exalted [*sic*]," a "sublime vision." By 1880 he had become convinced that "this wonderful land," still controlled by California, must become a national park open to all people. Bunnell considered himself humane and sympathetic toward Indian victims of government policy, but the doctor's bland description of a lynching betrayed him. At best, an old "squaw [was] a peculiar living ethnological curiosity"; at worst, "redskins" plundered, murdered, and committed atrocities. They were superstitious, treacherous, cunning marauders, "yelling demons [and] savages . . . overgrown vicious children" on whom moral teaching had no effect.

Bunnell accepted the need "to sweep the territory of any scattered bands that might infest it." The tactic of burning villages to starve or freeze the Miwoks into submission apparently did not disturb him. In one encounter Bunnell boasted that the Battalion suffered no casualties while killing twenty-three Miwoks: "No prisoners were taken," he calmly reported. This from a lover of nature who, as he later gazed at El Capitan, "found [his] eyes in tears with emotion."⁴

With such a beginning it is not surprising that the administrators of a park run for fifty years by the state of California and the U.S. Army could fall into thinking that the Indians had conveniently disappeared, and that sylvan meadows had just occurred as a product of nature. Neither belief was true. Indian horticulture had created the open valley that transfixed Bunnell. The people, although forced out in 1851–52, would escape captivity and return to Yosemite's Indian Canyon.

Bunnell may have considered them superstitious and ignorant, but his Ahwahneechee contemporaries knew exactly what had happened to their parents. An 1890 petition to Congress from fifty-two Indians asked for a million dollars in gold in compensation for ancestors victimized by "the overbearing tyranny and oppression of the white gold hunters." Forty years after the Mariposa War, Indians still wandered the valley, "poorly-clad and unwelcome guests, silently the objects of curiosity or contemptuous pity to the throngs of strangers." Inside Yosemite, the petition claimed, white men strung fences, grazed horses

and cattle, felled trees, and destroyed fish: "The valley is cut up completely by dusty, sandy roads, leading from the hotels of whites in every direction. . . . All seem to come only to hunt money. . . . This is not the way in which we treated this park when we had it. . . . This valley was taken away from us [for] a pleasure ground. . . . Yosemite is no longer a National Park, but merely a hay-farm and cattle range."⁵

Nothing came of the Ahwahneechee petition. A century later the Indian Council of Mariposa County still sought recognition, and as late as 1990 a few Miwoks remained in Yosemite, the last two being park employees Jay Johnson and Ralph Parker. While the government failed to evict the Havasupai at Grand Canyon Village in the 1960s, it succeeded at Yosemite: "It was the fourth era of village destruction," writes Rebecca Solnit. "The army had done the job in 1851 and 1906; the Park Service in 1929 and 1969."⁶ Although Yosemite built one of the first park museums, early curators interpreted Indians as relics or not at all. Today Indians at Yosemite demand that their story be told accurately and their culture be recognized.⁷

Compared with Yosemite, Yellowstone saw a gentler and less violent removal process. The first whites came as trappers, hunters, and campers, not as soldiers. Resident Sheepeaters consisted of small, scattered bands. Other Indians—Lakota, Shoshone, Crow, Bannock, Nez Percé, Flathead, Blackfeet—used the area often enough to inspire Philetus Norris, the second superintendent, to call for their expulsion shortly after the park's creation in 1872. Yellowstone also differed from Yosemite in having a treaty history and in having seen limited armed conflict.

Nevertheless, Yellowstone resembled Yosemite in having a long history of aboriginal use and in the decision that natives were no longer welcome. Prior human occupation left evidence of ancient campsites, hunting, a wide-ranging obsidian trade, and a trail system (which modern park highways follow) that dated back at least seventy-five hundred years. Yellowstone's average elevation of eight thousand feet and its status as a boundary area for the Great Plains, Basin, and Plateau cultures probably made year-round residence rare. This, coupled with drastic reductions of native population by disease, gave support to the white perception of vacant wilderness. The unratified Fort Laramie Treaty of 1851 did recognize Blackfeet and Crow claims to the area, but the government extinguished those claims in subsequent treaties and agreements.⁸

Negotiations for a major Crow cession in 1880, with Yellowstone getting a small segment, reveal prevalent nineteenth-century attitudes about reservation

and park land. Of the 1.7 million acres obtained by the government at a Washington meeting, Crows on the reservation refused to sell the easternmost 115,000 acres. "The portion ceded," the commissioner of Indian affairs reported to Interior, "is chiefly valuable for its mineral resources and its occupation has long been desired by the whites . . . the strip of land which the Crows refused to sell not being considered of any special advantage to the whites, if indeed it is of any particular value to the Indians."⁹ Likewise, a small northern strip added to Yellowstone from the Crow cession probably seemed of no advantage to anyone.

The idea of making Yellowstone a national park allegedly had occurred a decade earlier, when nine campers, two packers, and two cooks explored the area for a month. Astonished and stunned by an "unlimited grandeur and beauty" that they felt surpassed that of Niagara and Yosemite, the men at their final campfire supposedly pondered how to preempt superior lands for themselves. A lawyer named Cornelius Hedges spoke out, saying that he opposed all such plans, "that there ought to be no private ownership of any portion of this region, but that the whole of it ought to be set apart as a great National Park." His proposal, reported in Nathaniel Pitt Langford's journal of the expedition, "met with an instantaneous and favorable response."¹⁰ Following their adventure, Hedges, Langford, and the others devoted themselves to establishing a park, and they managed to achieve their goal in less than two years. On March 1, 1872, the Congress and President Ulysses S. Grant created the first national park in the history of the world.¹¹

Yellowstone Indians, despite a long association with the land, offered little resistance. Shoshone Sheepeaters, relatively recent occupants, retreated from contact and, at the request of superintendent Philetus Norris, were relocated to the Wind River and Fort Hall Reservations. After the Nez Percé incident in 1877 and skirmishes with the Bannock a year later, Norris decreed that all Indians must leave Yellowstone.¹² His reasoning persisted for years:

Yellowstone is not Indian country and no natives lived in the park, any that did were "harmless bermits." Like others before it, the 1870 Washburn expedition armed itself fully, fearing ambush, and on its second day of travel believed it saw a hundred Indians; at the same time whites insisted that Indians feared the region and stayed away. Norris considered firearms necessary for defense and built a fort; Indians posed a threat even though he claimed that few of them lived there. For him, the "pigmy tribe of timid

and harmless Sheepeater Indians" were also "dexterous thieves and dangerous cliff fighters" who attacked miners. Later the Army would report that Indians set fires in the park, raided, poached game, and could not be controlled by the BIA.¹³

Indian fear of geysers kept them out of the park. This idea ignored campsites, artifacts, and trail routes. As with Yosemite, this myth denied the human activity that made Yellowstone appear parklike to early visitors, a management factor that the NPS would overlook with disastrous results.¹⁴

Yellowstone is for the use and enjoyment of all Americans. But the people who had used it the longest were driven away. Even in 1935, when Crow Indians sought free access, the government rejected their request. NPS critic Alston Chase saves his harshest words for such irony: "Created for the benefit and enjoyment of the people, [Yellowstone] destroyed a people. Dedicated to preservation, it evicted those who had preserved it. Touted as pristine, the policy required that we forget those whose absence diminished it. Denied its Indian past, it deprived us of the knowledge to keep it pristine."¹⁵

The widespread misconception that Indians feared national park areas and had not used the land merits further comment. Even though native traditions indicated otherwise, whites claimed that supposed fear of spirits prevented Pacific Northwest tribes from climbing Mt. Rainier or using the interior Olympic Peninsula. In the Southwest, "superstition" kept Navajos and Utes away from Anasazi ruins, while in Utah, according to one NPS official, "the red man held the tinted walls of Zion in fearsome awe." Similar stories explained an imagined absence of natives at Canada's Banff and Riding Mountain National Parks.¹⁶

Nowhere, however, did a myth of fearful Indians become as deeply entrenched as at Yellowstone. Very likely originating in fur trapper tales, including those of Jim Bridger, and then recorded by Jesuit missionary Pierre-Jean DeSmet, the idea of a native geyser taboo has persisted into the present. Philetus Norris quoted a Shoshone who called the geysers "heap, heap bad," and Norris claimed that other tribes stayed away because of "a superstitious awe concerning the rumbling and hissing sulfur fumes of the spouting geysers and other hot springs, which they imagined to be the wails and groans of departed Indian warriors who were suffering punishment for their early sins."¹⁷ Park

guidebooks repeated such beliefs, as did Yellowstone superintendent Horace Albright in 1928 and Secretary of the Interior Stewart Udall in 1966. Scholars such as Ake Hultkrantz likewise promoted the idea that the geysers frightened Plains tribes.¹⁸

At Yellowstone, as elsewhere, the geyser taboo helped justify a national park that excluded natives. It also illustrates how ideas about Indians often possessed more power than reality. The same was true about nature. Wilderness does not locate or define itself, as Simon Schama observes; rather, "all our landscapes, from the city park to the mountain hike, are imprinted with our tenacious, inescapable obsessions."¹⁹ Stewart Udall once called the creation of Yellowstone "a fluke." Not so. Yellowstone resulted in part from an obsession with beauty, remarkable landscape, and natural wonders that inspired Cornelius Hedges, Henry Washburn, and Nathaniel Pitt Langford to reject the convention of private ownership and work toward the creation of a park available to everyone.

Twenty-seven years later the same emotions would make Mt. Rainier in Washington state a national park. One author of this book grew up in the shadow of Rainier, has climbed it a number of times, and has hiked hundreds of miles on its trails; the other author worked there for several seasons. Between us, we have traveled almost every road and path in a park that for nearly a century after its birth neglected native history.

Living in Tacoma, one learned that the peak's true name is "Tahoma." Hiking the trails, one came upon Sluskin Falls, Mowich Lake, Little Tahoma, Yakima Park, Indian Henry's Hunting Ground, Indian Bar, Naches Peak, and Ohanapcosh Creek, yet the Park Service provided little or no information on what the names meant or their origin. Nor did tourists learn that Indians had hunted game, gathered berries, and guided early white men to the mountain; Indians may have assisted in the first ascent of the 14,400-foot summit. In 1960 at Rainier a visitor would find less Indian history than had been available in the colorful stories published by John H. Williams in *The Mountain that Was God* (1910). Few modern guests were told that place names like Yakima, Cayuse, Muckleshoot, Puyallup, and Nisqually are also names of living people and modern communities. Few park rangers knew about early controversies over the confiscation of native weapons, nor did they realize that past conflicts at Rainier had resulted in attempts to legally define Indian hunting and fishing rights for all parks. Even fewer NPS staff knew that the Rainier National Park

Company once imported Yakamas to perform for tourists and sell goods, a project that eventually failed because the Indians preferred to race their horses and pick berries.²⁰

A Service and a System

When Congress created the NPS in 1916 to operate the national parks, it bequeathed distortions and ignorance about native history at Rainier, Yosemite, Yellowstone, and many other of the thirty-six existing units. The Service would do little to rectify the situation until late in the century, partly because the new agency faced problems of its own.

From its beginning the NPS lacked the power and prestige of other land management agencies in Washington. Thanks to the dedication of Stephen Mather and Horace Albright it developed the "founder's myth" necessary for esprit de corps. More than most federal agencies, it pursued an idealistic mission that led to exceptional public trust. But the NPS, although victorious in initial turf battles, could not compete in Congress with the Bureau of Reclamation, the Army Corps of Engineers, or the U.S. Forest Service (USFS). Considered a luxury, the Park Service lacked scientific or military prestige; its programs did not produce dollars or protect potential wealth—instead, they cost dollars and could limit wealth. In the iron triangle between agency, lobby, and Congress, the NPS never had enough support to solve its budget problems. As for a lobby, few among the millions of park visitors provided political backing. Until the mid-sixties the strongest NPS lobby was the National Parks and Conservation Association (NPCA), a group that at times harshly criticized the service. Jeanne Clarke and Daniel McCool in their comparative study conclude that the Army Corps and USFS became federal "superstars," with the NPS not even attaining "shooting star" status.²¹

Compared with the BIA, however, the NPS indeed looked like a superstar. The BIA had no founder's myth, no lobby, no public popularity, few avid supporters in Congress, no tourist industry, and no upper-class professional elite. It did not even produce wealth of the spirit. Representative Louis Cramton, who strongly supported Mather and the NPS in the twenties, was an outspoken, persistent critic of the BIA during the same period. The Bureau had no power brokers like Henry M. Jackson, Gaylord Nelson, or Wayne Aspinall inside Congress, nor advocates like David Brower of the Sierra Club or Anthony Wayne Smith of the NPCA outside it.

At the birth of the Park Service, BIA reform groups such as the Board of Indian Commissioners and the Indian Rights Association had become ineffectual, in part because they had embraced assimilation and land allotment as the solution to the Indians' plight. In 1916 the program of massive tribal land transfers progressed under the Allotment Act, a process endorsed by the U.S. Supreme Court in its *Lone Wolf v. Hitchcock* decision, which confirmed absolute congressional control of native land. Opening of reservations for settlement compensated for millions of acres withdrawn from the public domain by national forests and parks, while inside the BIA Indians had iron-fisted "friends" like James McLaughlin, who believed that surrender of excess land was in a tribe's best interest. Secretary of the Interior Franklin Lane, a Western land developer with oil interests, supported parks, allotment, and assimilation; his Commissioner of Indian Affairs, Cato Sells, shared his views. Lane would be succeeded by Albert Fall, and Sells by Charles Burke, both of whom made Lane and Sells seem benign. The Park Service appeared during a grim era for Indians.²²

Congress created the NPS because early parks, along with national monuments, which the president could create at will under the American Antiquities Act of 1906, had grown into this "hodgepodge of areas inconsistently managed and inadequately protected." Stirred into the hodgepodge were former Indian lands at Yellowstone, Mesa Verde, and Glacier, as well as odd places like Sully's Hill and Platte. Condemned as "the most worthless national park ever created," Sully's Hill had been carved out of the Devil's Lake reservation of the Wahpeton Sioux in 1904; the NPS cheerfully turned it over to Agriculture in 1931. The nine hundred acres at Platt National Park in Oklahoma had been purchased from the Chickasaw and Choctaws in 1902. Featuring hot springs polluted by sewage from the town of Sulphur, it became the most ridiculed park in the system, the butt of "give it back to the Indians" jokes.²³

In the years before 1916, park advocates did not find it funny that Hetch Hetchy Valley had been drowned in Yosemite, that the Wilson administration favored the USFS and development interests over preservation, or that five unrelated federal agencies, which included the Army, the USFS, and the General Land Office, managed the parks. Whether creating a new bureau could streamline and rationalize matters, whether a National Park Service meant a national park system, became a debate that continues today.

Whatever its successes or failures, the service marked a final step in the Far West's "bureaucratic revolution" that had begun thirty years earlier. Westerners and corporations had first applauded placing the public domain under federal

agencies to provide subsidies and services, the West later came to resent the NPS, USFS, U.S. Fish and Wildlife Service (USFWS), Bureau of Land Management, and U.S. Geological Survey, all run by a college-educated managerial elite who imposed regulations and restraints.²⁴ Unlike Canada, in the twentieth-century American West federal control of land and water did not disappear, nor have sagebrush rebellions and bitter arguments about "wise use" ceased. The NPS may be the most admired and trusted of all federal agencies, but when one talks to loggers, ranchers, or Indians, that feeling proves to be far from universal.

Although the service's first two directors, Mather and Albright, plus many of the superintendents, had a genuine interest in archaeology and native artifacts, their knowledge of living Indians was superficial and naive. Albright's chapter devoted to "Indians" in *Oh, Ranger!* and Superintendent Miner Tillotson's *Grand Canyon Country* reveal early NPS attitudes. Both men recognized that tribes had a historic, inherent relationship with parks, a relationship far older and deeper than that of other Americans. But for "dudes," as Albright called tourists, romantic stereotypes loomed more real than life. And since "picturesque" misconceptions added drama to parks, he was not eager to dismantle the myths.

Although Albright and Tillotson rightly considered themselves more knowledgeable than the average American, at the time they lacked anthropological knowledge and, like all of us, they accepted cultural myths: Albright could assert that the most distinct elements in Navajo culture were colorful costumes and headbands. He described Sheepeaters as "diggers . . . a timid people . . . lacking in brains and initiative"; natives around Mt. Rainier were "short, flat-faced, unattractive." Tillotson considered the Hopi and Navajo to be "fascinating lures" to the Grand Canyon: "The red man [is] primitive but happy, contented, unchanged by the white man's civilization." Native legends were "childish."

Despite their shaky knowledge, Tillotson and Albright had a genuine concern for Indians and could defend native interests as they understood them. Albright, an honorary member of the Salish-Kootenai, understood the religious significance of landforms and avidly collected native crafts. He favored keeping Indian place-names, appreciated cultural diversity among tribes, and knew that not only Yellowstone, Yosemite, and Glacier but also Lassen, Zion, Crater Lake, Rocky Mountain, and Mt. Rainier had extensive native histories. Unlike other NPS directors, Albright had enough sensitivity never to pose for photos in Indian garb, and unlike many in the NPS, he also perceived that parks and reservations shared the distinction of being considered America's "worthless lands."²⁵

NPS history after 1916 is extensive and complex, forcing us to select a few

specific parks that best illustrate what happened. Lack of space forces omission of fascinating stories, such as that of the dispute in 1923 between Mather, Albright, and Secretary of the Interior Albert Fall over a park that would have involved Fall's own land in New Mexico as well as land of the Mescalero Apache.²⁶ Omitted are the careers of Indian park superintendents, including Indian women.²⁷ Not included are relations with fifteen Pueblo reservations near Bandelier, or the story of the Sioux and Chippewa at Pipestone Quarry, the Sioux and Crow at the Little Big Horn, or the Sioux in the Badlands. The NPS manages a recreation area behind Grand Coulee dam, which flooded Colville lands, and another behind Yellowtail dam on Crow land. Native people have relations with Acadia in Maine, Organ Pipe and Saguaro in Arizona, Kaloko-Honokohau in Hawaii. They obviously claim a common history with NPS historic sites at Forts Vancouver, Bowie, Smith, Larned, and Laramie, with missions such as Marcus Whitman's at Walla Walla and Father Kino's at Tumacacori.

We regretfully pass by the model "partnership park" managed by the Nez Percé tribe since 1965, as well as failed attempts to create similar partnerships with the Gila River Pima at Snaketown in Arizona and the Zuni at Cibola in New Mexico. Snaketown and Cibola, like Apostle Islands, mark a modern era in park/Indian relations. Congress authorized the parks in 1971 and 1988 respectively, only to have the Pima and Zuni people block the process.²⁸ Similar native resistance early in this century at Mesa Verde, Glacier, Canyon de Chelly, and the Grand Canyon did not succeed.

Writers often refer to national parks and Indian reservations as islands: Parks are called "islands under siege" or "islands of hope"; reservations appear as islands of poverty and islands of despair. But whereas the concept of an ecological island may help us understand biology, insular analogies will mislead anyone studying the history of native people and parks. The word "island" implies some degree of autonomy and isolation, of geographic separation with distinct borders. Except for a few parks such as Isle Royale, the Channel Islands, and Apostle Islands, however, that is not physically, politically, or culturally true of national parks. Parks, like reservations, border other lands defined by artificial and often controversial boundaries that change over time, borders that seldom coincide with rivers, wind currents, animal migration routes, toxic waste pollution, highways—or with the cultural heritage of native people. As we shall learn, the island metaphor does not apply. Or at the very least, it requires a half-dozen sturdy bridges for every mile of waterfront.

38. Interviews with Ervin Soulier, June 7, 1991; Andrew Goakee, June 10, 13, 1991; Patricia DePerry, June 14, 1991.
39. Bechtel interview, March 4, 1985.

Chapter 2

1. Short and readable surveys of Indian history are William Hagan's *American Indians* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1993); Angie Debo, *History of the Indians of the United States* (Norman: University of Oklahoma Press, 1970); and park historian Robert Utley's *Indian Frontier of the American West* (Albuquerque: University of New Mexico Press, 1984). More recent is Alvin M. Josephy's *Five Hundred Nations* (New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1994); and Parman, *Indians and the American West*. These overviews can be supplemented with the *Smithsonian Handbook of North American Indians*, William C. Sturtevant, ed., especially vol. 4, *History of Indian-White Relations*, ed. Wilcomb E. Washburn. Francis Paul Prucha, S.J., has written over twenty books on the history of government policy, including *The Indians in American Society from the Revolutionary War to the Present* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1985); for extensive detail see Prucha's *Great Father: The United States Government and the American Indians*, 2 vols. (Lincoln: University of Nebraska Press, 1984); *American Indian Treaties: The History of a Political Anomaly* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1994); and *Atlas of American Indian Affairs* (Lincoln: University of Nebraska Press, 1990). Legal history is placed in perspective by Charles F. Wilkinson, *American Indians, Time, and the Law: Native Societies in a Modern Constitutional Democracy* (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1987). A view of how things really work can be gained from Vine Deloria, Jr., and Clifford M. Lytle, *American Indians, American Justice* (Austin: University of Texas Press, 1983); and Deloria, *American Indian Policy in the Twentieth Century* (Norman: University of Oklahoma Press, 1985). For the universal dispossession of hunter-gatherer cultures, see Jared Diamond, *Guns, Germs, and Steel: The Fates of Human Societies* (New York: W. W. Norton, 1997).
2. Simon Schama, *Landscape and Memory* (New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1995), pp. 7, 18. Schama contends that all people carry eons of symbolic images and mythic cultural baggage that, even in highly industrial societies, compel people to seek the rural and the wild, pp. 78ff., 141. His extensive bibliography lists the major French, German, and English works on attitudes toward nature.
3. For California native history, see Theodora Kroeber and Robert F. Heizer, *Almost Ancestors: The First Californians* (San Francisco: Sierra Club, 1968); Julian H. Steward, *Indian Tribes of Sequoia National Park Region* (Berkeley: National Park Service, 1935); Robert F. Heizer and Alan Almquist, *The Other Californians* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1971); Robert F. Heizer, *The Destruction of California Indians* (Lincoln: University of Nebraska Press, 1973); Alberto L. Hurtado, *Indian Survival on*

the California Frontier (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1988). For Yosemite, see: Elizabeth Godfrey, "Yosemite Indians: Yesterday and Today," *Yosemite Nature Notes*, (July 1941), pp. 49–72; Margaret Sanborn, *Yosemite: Its Discovery, Its Wonders, and Its People* (New York: Random House, 1991); Rebecca Solnit, "Up the River of Mercy," *Sierra* (November 1992), pp. 50–58, 78–84; and *Savage Dreams*. Lowell Bean and Sylvia Vane wrote a 1984 Yosemite ethnohistory for the Mariposa Indian Council; a manuscript copy is available in the NPS Regional Office, San Francisco. The tradition of ignoring native history continues in Milton Goldstein, *The Magnificent West: Yosemite* (New York: Arch Cape Press, 1988); and Alfred Runte, *Yosemite: The Embattled Wilderness* (Lincoln: University of Nebraska Press, 1990).

4. LaFayette Houghton Bunnell, *Discovery of the Yosemite and the Indian War of 1851* (Chicago: Fleming H. Revell, 1880), pp. 28, 54, 76, 105, 237–38, 270–76, 285–87.
5. Edward D. Castillo, ed., "Petition to Congress on Behalf of the Yosemite Indians," *Journal of California Anthropology*, 5:2 (1979), pp. 271–77.
6. Solnit, *Savage Dreams*, p. 288.
7. Solnit, *Savage Dreams*, pp. 276–79; Craig D. Bates and Martha J. Lee, *Tradition and Innovation: A Basket History of the Indians of the Yosemite-Mono Lake Area* (Yosemite National Park: Yosemite Association, 1990), pp. 193–94; Craig Bates, "Yosemite's Indians," *CRM Bulletin*, 6:2 (June 1983), pp. 8–9. Solnit has an excellent discussion of the meaning of "Yosemite" and the importance of native place names to Indians, pp. 309–27. Bates's and Lee's book is the single most important source for an appreciation of the persistent native presence in Yosemite; see pp. 203–16 for bibliography.
8. Judith Basin Treaty with the Blackfeet, 1855; Fort Laramie Treaty with the Crow, 1868; Fort Bridger Treaty with the Shoshone and Bannock, 1868; Crow Agreement, 1880, in Charles Kappler, comp., *Indian Affairs, Laws, and Treaties* (Washington, D.C.: Government Printing Office, 1904–1941), vol. 2. Joel C. Janetski, *Indians of Yellowstone Park* (Salt Lake City: University of Utah Press, 1987), p. 54, claims that Philetus Norris negotiated "treaties" (ratified in 1882) in which Indians agreed to stay away from the park. Janetski provides no citation, and there are no such documents in Kappler, *Indian Affairs*, vol. 1.
9. R. E. Trowbridge to Carl Schurz, May 14, 1880, and Hiram Price to S. J. Kirkwood, December 16, 1881, in *House Report No. 311*, 47th Cong., 1st Sess., pp. 1–3.
10. Nathaniel Pitt Langford, *The Discovery of Yellowstone Park: Journal of the Washburn Expedition to the Yellowstone and Firehole Rivers in the Year 1870* (Lincoln: University of Nebraska Press, 1972), pp. 117–18.
11. Alfred Runte in *Trains of Discovery: Western Railroads and the National Parks* (Niwot, Colo.: Roberts Rinehart, 1990) debunks much of the Langford story, giving major credit instead to Jay Cooke and the Northern Pacific, pp. 13–24.
12. Janetski, *Indians of Yellowstone Park*, pp. 39–55; Richard A. Bartlett, *Yellowstone:*

A Wilderness Besieged (Tucson: University of Arizona Press, 1989), pp. 21–28. *Indians of Yellowstone: The Sheepeaters, Keepers of the Past* (1993), Earthtalk Video, P.O. Box 1540, Bozeman, Mont., 59771, is the first of a planned series on Indians and national parks.

13. Langford, *The Discovery of Yellowstone Park*, pp. 6, 9–12, 26, 92, 97; Superintendent of Yellowstone National Park, *Annual Reports*, 1879, p. 11; 1880, pp. 35–36; 1889, pp. 13–16.

14. The most passionate statements of this thesis are in Chase, *Playing God in Yellowstone*, p. 103ff.; Solnit, *Savage Dreams*, pp. 294–308.

15. NA: RG 75, CF 1907–1939, Crow Agency: J. Collier to Arno Cammerer, n.d.; W. V. Woehlke to Collier, December 2, 1935; Pfeiffer and Yellowtail internal memos, December 1935. Chase, *Playing God in Yellowstone*, p. 115.

16. NA: RG 79, E-7, Navajo Box 2301, J. W. Brewer to N. Drury, June 28, 1946, re Navajo National Monument. James Wickersham, "A National Park in the Olympics," [1890] *Living Wilderness*, 77 (Summer 1961), pp. 5–13; John H. Williams, *The Mountain that Was God* (Tacoma, Wash.: privately printed, 1910); Albright, *Ob, Ranger!*, pp. 95–96; Frank McNitt, *Richard Wetherill, Anasazi* (Albuquerque: University of New Mexico Press, 1966); Duane A. Smith, *Mesa Verde National Park: Shadows of the Centuries* (Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 1988); Eivind T. Scoyen, *The Rainbow Canyons* (Palo Alto, Calif.: Stanford University Press, 1931).

17. Superintendent of Yellowstone, *Annual Reports*, 1880, p. 35; 1881, p. 38. Norris also claimed that "rushing cataracts" frightened the Indians.

18. Albright, *Ob, Ranger!*, p. 88; Udall, *The National Parks of America*, p. 190; Ake Hultkrantz, "The Fear of Geysers among Indians of the Yellowstone Park Area," in Leslie B. Davis, ed., *Lifeways of Intermontane and Plains Montana Indians* (Bozeman, Mont.: Museum of the Rockies, 1979), pp. 33–42. Not everyone believed the myth. As early as 1895, historian Hiram M. Chittenden rejected such a concept; see *The Yellowstone National Park* (Norman: University of Oklahoma Press, 1964), ch. 2. Park historian Merrill Beal had a low opinion of native culture but sought to demonstrate that geyser fear was a white misconception: *The Story of Man in Yellowstone* (Caldwell, Idaho: Caxton, 1949), ch. 5. A thoroughly documented and convincing analysis of the question, and especially of Hultkrantz's work, is Joseph Weixelman, "The Power to Evoke Wonder: Native Americans & the Geysers of Yellowstone National Park," Masters thesis, Montana State University, 1992. Weixelman concludes that native fear of the park was a white invention. For another critique of Hultkrantz's method, see Sam D. Gill, *Mother Earth: An American Story* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1987), pp. 118–28.

19. Schama, *Landscape and Memory*, p. 7.

20. Michael F. Turek and Robert H. Keller, "Sluskin: Yakima Guide to Mount Rainier," *Columbia* (Spring 1991), pp. 2–7; Allan H. Smith, *Ethnographic Guide to the*

Archaeology of Mt. Rainier National Park (National Park Service report, 1964); Theodore Catton, "Indians and Mount Rainier," in a draft administrative history of the park loaned to the authors; NA: RG 79, CF Box 140: Ira D. Light to Franklin K. Lane, February 5, 1917; H. Albright to Cato Sells, October 18, 1917; E. B. Meritt to Albright, November 2, 1917; T. A. Martin to O. A. Tomlinson, August 15, 1925. NA: RG 48, E-749, CCF Box 1991, file 12: Solicitor's opinion on "Mount Rainier Fish and Game" from Preston C. West, c. 1915.

21. Jeanne Nienaber Clarke and Daniel McCool, *Staking Out the Terrain: Power Differentials among Natural Resource Management Agencies* (Albany: State University of New York, 1985); Horace M. Albright, *The Birth of the National Park Service: The Founding Years, 1913–1933* (Salt Lake City: Howe Brothers, 1985); John C. Miles, *Guardians of the Parks*, Dwight F. Rettie, *Our National Park System: Caring for America's Greatest Natural and Historic Treasures* (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 1995); Lowry, *A Capacity for Wonder*.

22. E. Louise Peffer, *The Closing of the Public Domain: Disposal and Reservation Policies, 1900–1950* (Palo Alto, Calif.: Stanford University Press, 1951); Janet A. McDonnell, *Dispossession of the American Indian: 1887–1934* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 1991); James McLaughlin, *My Friend the Indian* (Boston: Houghton Mifflin, 1910); Vernon R. Carstensen, ed., *The Public Lands: Studies in the History of the Public Domain* (Madison: University of Wisconsin Press, 1963); Roy M. Robbins, *Our Landed Heritage* (Lincoln: University of Nebraska Press, 1962).

23. Miles, *Guardians of the Parks* p. 1; Ise, *Our National Park Policy*, pp. 139–42. Originally called Sulphur Springs, Platt was established at the nadir of Chickasaw and Choctaw history and very likely involved removal of Indians. Early NPS racial obtuseness is revealed in matter-of-fact staff discussions of "Nigger Run Creek Bridge" at Platt. NA: RG 79: CCF:Platt, Charles A. Richey Report, July 13, 1934. The service finally reclassified Platt into a ten-thousand-acre recreation area in 1976 and renamed it to honor its previous Chickasaw owners instead of a U.S. senator from Connecticut.

24. Richard White, *"It's Your Misfortune and None of My Own": A New History of the American West* (Norman: University of Oklahoma Press, 1991), pp. 391–93, 409–415. White's theory regarding a sharp contrast between East and West land control can be quickly confirmed by glancing at an NPS acreage map.

25. Albright, *Ob, Ranger!*, pp. 81–96; M. R. Tillotson and Frank J. Taylor, *Grand Canyon Country* (Palo Alto, Calif.: Stanford University Press, 1929), ch. 3. Horace Albright died one week before our scheduled interview. According to his daughter, "he was deeply, deeply devoted to Indians. He had a great love, a very tremendous empathy with them, and admiration for their culture." Marian Albright Schenck interview, December 5, 1991. Only once, at his Flathead initiation, did Albright put on a headdress. His daughter cannot explain this exception.

26. See Ise, *Our National Park Policy*, pp. 296–97; Albright, *The Birth of the National Park Service*, pp. 128–35; Shankland, *Steve Mather of the National Parks*, pp. 221–24; Miles, *Guardians of the Parks*, pp. 48–52. The BIA opposed the Mescalero park project.

27. The first native woman superintendent was Ellen Hays at Sitka National Historic Park. Barbara Booher (Ute-Cherokee) managed Custer Battlefield during the controversy over its name change and is now tribal liaison for the Rocky Mountain Region.

28. Douglas H. Scovill, "Zuni Comprehensive Plan and After," *CRM Bulletin*, 3:3 (September 1980), pp. 10–13. Emil Haury and Edmund Ladd interviews, February 4, April 10, 1992; Virginia M. Robicheau, "Bandelier National Monument and Native American Concerns," *CRM Bulletin*, 3:4 (December 1980), p. 3. For the Nez Perce National Historic Park, see Alvin M. Josephy, Jr., *Nez Perce Country* (Washington, D.C.: National Park Service, 1983). The park includes the Spalding mission at Lapwai, and the Clearwater, White Bird Canyon, and Bear Paw Mountains battlefields; it does not include Big Hole Battlefield.

Chapter 3

1. For general works on the Utes of Colorado, see Joseph G. Jorgensen, *The Sun Dance Religion: Power for the Powerless* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1972); Jan Pettit, *Utes: The Mountain People* (Colorado Springs, Colo.: Century One Press, 1982); Charles S. Marsh, *The Utes of Colorado: People of the Shining Mountains* (Boulder, Colo.: Pruett Publishing Company, 1982); William Sturtevant, ed., *Handbook*, vol. 11, *Great Basin*, pp. 336–67. Hal Borland's novel, *When the Legends Die* (New York: J. B. Lippincott Co., 1963), describes twentieth-century Ute culture in transition. Frank Gilbert Roe, *The Indian and the Horse* (Norman: University of Oklahoma Press, 1955), discusses the equestrian revolution in tribal history, pp. 73, 79.

2. Robert Emmitt, *The Last War Trail* (Norman: University of Oklahoma Press, 1954), p. 235. Also see Marshall Sprague, *Massacre: The Tragedy at White River* (Boston: Little, Brown & Co., 1957).

3. Jorgensen, *The Sun Dance Religion*, p. 59.

4. Smith, *Mesa Verde National Park*, pp. 10–15. Smith's book is exceptional for its attention to the Ute role in the park's history.

5. Smith, *Mesa Verde National Park*, pp. 16–19. For discussion of the Wetherills' role in southwestern archaeology, see Hal Rothman, *Preserving Different Pasts: The American National Monuments* (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 1989); McNitt, Richard Wetherill, Anasazi, and David Roberts, "Reverse Archaeologists," *Smithsonian*, 24, (December 1993), pp. 28–38.

6. Smith, *Mesa Verde National Park*, p. 26. Frederick H. Chapin, *The Land of the Cliff-*

Dwellers (1892; reprint, Tucson: University of Arizona Press, 1988), pp. 117–19. Chapin quotes a Ute named Wap as saying of Richard Wetherill: "White man rich; Indian poor. White man dig up Moquis, make Ute sick; little Ute, big Ute, all heap sick."

7. Smith, *Mesa Verde National Park*, p. 43.

8. Smith, *Mesa Verde National Park*, pp. 44, 46, 53. Alice Bishop apparently had an agreement in 1903, but the Utes repudiated it within a year. When Patterson and McClurg visited in 1904, Utes claimed that the government had not kept Bishop's promise of rations and irrigation. The Indian Appropriation Act of March 3, 1903, provided "that the Secretary of the Interior be directed to negotiate with the Weeminuchi Ute Tribe of Indians for the relinquishment of their right of occupancy to the United States to the tract of land known as the Mesa Verde, a part of the reservation of said Tribe, situated in the county of Montezuma, in the State of Colorado, the said tract to include and cover the ruins and prehistoric remains situate therein. And the Secretary of the Interior shall report to the next session of Congress the terms and conditions upon which the said Tribe of Indians will relinquish to the United States the right of occupancy to said tract of land."

9. Smith, *Mesa Verde National Park*, p. 61. Ricardo Torres-Reyes, *Mesa Verde National Park: An Administrative History, 1906–1970* (Washington, D.C.: National Park Service, 1970), p. 9.

10. NA: RG 79, Mesa Verde, Box 100, Lands file: John F. Shafroth, Governor of Colorado, to Richard A. Ballinger, June 8, 1909; H. M. Randolph to Ballinger, July 1, 1909; John Spear to Robert Valentine, October 23, 1909; Valentine to Ballinger, July 1, 1909; U. L. Clardy to Francis Leupp, June 7, 1909.

11. NA: RG 79, Mesa Verde, Box 100, Lands file: F. H. Abbott to Clement S. Ucker, October 1, December 2, 1910.

12. McLaughlin, *My Friend the Indian*, pp. 272–87. McLaughlin disliked the Utes, whom he considered sullen and uncooperative; had they been "whipped" by the army, he felt, "they would not be the irresponsible, shiftless and defiant people they are today [1910]." He saw all Indians as children who must be made to recognize the superior intelligence and power of whites. For a critique of his role in implementing the Dawes Act, see McDonnell, *Dispossession of the American Indian*, pp. 94–98.

McLaughlin's 1911 mission to the Utes was not his first attempt to acquire Indian land for a national park. In 1899, he tried unsuccessfully to obtain a quarry from the Yankton Sioux in southern Minnesota. The government eventually acquired the site in 1929, with Franklin Roosevelt creating Pipestone National Monument in 1937. See William P. Corbett, "The Red Pipestone Quarry: The Yanktons Defend a Sacred Tradition, 1858–1929," *South Dakota History*, 8 (Spring 1978), pp. 99–106; and "Pipestone: The Origin and Development of a National Monument," *Minnesota*